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PREDICTORS OF AUTOMOBILE COMMUTERS' ENJOYMENT DURING THEIR COMMUTES TO AND FROM WORK

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Abstract – This research project involved evaluating predictors of commute enjoyment. Not much research has been conducted on this topic. However, Higgins et al. (2018) found that satisfaction and enjoyment of commute declined as travel time and congestion increased. A total of 490 participants completed the online survey about both their commutes to and from work. We ran regression analyses for commutes to and from work and we found the following results. Commute time, having someone else in the vehicle, predictability of the commute, lack of time pressures, and seeing one's commute as useful predicted enjoyment with the commute to work (the model accounted for 46.3% of the variance, $F(7, 463) = 58.961$, $p < .001$). Gender identity and an uncongested commute were not predictors of commute enjoyment to work. Commute time, having someone else in the automobile, predictability of the commute, an uncongested commute, and seeing one's commute as useful predicted enjoyment with the commute from work (the model accounted for 56.7% of the variance, $F(7, 464) = 89.12$, $p < .001$). We did not find gender identity or time pressures to predict commute enjoyment from work. By understanding the predictors of commute enjoyment, commuters can take steps to create a more enjoyable commute experience. For example, commuters could create a more predictable commute by using a less congested route. Commuters could also link a motive to their commute or reevaluate the purpose of their commute to increase the perceived usefulness of their commute, which can influence enjoyment of the commute.

Keywords: commute, commuting, enjoyment, automobile, carpooling, commute time, predictability, congestion, time pressures, useful

The research literature on commuting to and from work using automobiles primarily focused on commuter stress from the 1970s until the 2000s (Chatterjee et al., 2020). Many of the researchers studied the effects of impedance (i.e., frustration or stress from obstacles to travel mobility; Novaco et al., 1979) and congestion (e.g., Schaeffer et al., 1988), which were found to create commuter stress (e.g., Sposato et al., 2012). In addition, predictability was found to be a predictor of commuter stress (e.g., Novaco & Gonzalez, 2009). To reduce commuter stress, commute predictability—the ability to properly estimate the duration and circumstances—is essential (Koslowsky, 1998). When transportation routes are constant, people may strategically manage their schedules, thereby reducing stress from potential disruptions. However, unpredictable commuting may increase stress by causing a sense of insecurity and doubt (Gottholmseder et al., 2009).Source Credibility of Information

More recently, researchers have proposed that commuting can have positive utility (Basmajian, 2010; Mokhtarian & Salomon, 2001; Mokhtarian et al., 2001; Ory & Mokhtarian, 2005; Redmond & Mokhtarian, 2001; Singleton 2018; Singleton & Clifton, 2021), which calls into question whether commuting should be viewed as always negative (Higgins et al., 2018). Positive utility looks at commuters' motives for and the benefits of commuting including using time productively, positive feelings and emotions during commuting, and the enjoyment of driving (Mokhtarian & Salomon, 2001). Singleton and Clifton (2021) note that much of the recent research has found that around half or more of the participants report feeling positive when they commute, or they consider commuting to be pleasant. According to Ory et al. (2004), people who view commuting as

productive and do not find it overly stressful are more likely to enjoy it. Blumen (2000) also notes that some commuters view commuting as a useful transition between work and home.

This research specifically focused on automobile commute enjoyment to and from work and factors that predicted it. The factors used to predict commute enjoyment were gender identity, trip attributes (i.e.., commute time, having someone else in the automobile, predictable commutes, lack of time pressures, and uncongested commutes), and drivers' perceptions of the commute (i.e., usefulness of the commute) and will be reviewed next.

Although much of the research on gender identity has been about evaluating the differences in length of commute times for men and women, a few studies have evaluated their responses to the commute. Handy and Thigpen (2019) found women to rate their commutes as more stressful, see it as wasted time, and were less satisfied with their selected mode of transportation (i.e., automobile, public transport, waking, and biking). This could be because of many women's greater responsibility for childcare and other household responsibilities, which could make them more sensitive to perceived lost time during their commute time (McQuaid & Chen, 2011, Roberts et al., 2011). Sweet and Kanaroglou (2016) add that women often have more complex travel and time use patterns than men because of these responsibilities. Kunn–Nelen (2015) found that longer commute times were more strongly related to decreased sleep quality for women than men and that women were less likely to have regular physical exercise if they had a longer commute. Based on this research, we assumed that gender identity would predict commute enjoyment to and from work.

Commute time is a commonly assessed trip attribute, and it is often evaluated by using minutes commuted. The average daily commute for those in the United States lasts approximately 27.6 minutes one way, and most view commuting as a necessary part of their job (U.S. Census Bureau, 2021b). Workers are spending more time commuting to and from work. According to data collected by the United States Census Bureau (2021a) in 2019, people who drove their own vehicles to work saw changes in their commute times. In 2006, 14.8% of commuters indicated that their trip times were shorter than 10 minutes; by 2019, this group had decreased to 11.9%. On the other hand, the percentage of employees who reported having commutes of 60 minutes or more climbed from 7.9% in 2006 to 9.8% in 2019. The trend towards longer commute times using various travel modes have had adverse effects on commuters' health, including elevated levels of stress and a decline in overall well-being (Han et al., 2023). Longer commute times also can impact how drivers feel about their commutes, as long commutes have both monetary and social costs (Basmajian, 2010).

Researchers have found that commuters favor moderate commute times as compared to very short or long commutes, or they prefer eliminating the commute altogether (Ory et al., 2004; Redmond & Mokhtarian, 2001). Recently, He and Zhao (2017) found that Chinese commuters' ideal commute time to be 18.6 minutes. For this study, commute time to and from work was used as a predictor of commute enjoyment and we assumed that a long commute would decrease enjoyment.

Not much research has been conducted on having someone else in the automobile, and the research that has been conducted has not looked at the psychological effects. Instead, it has looked at factors such as incentives for carpooling (e.g., Buliung et al., 2009). However, a study published 30 years ago evaluated ridesharing and found those who shared a vehicle were less bothered by congestion and were more satisfied with their commute (Novaco & Collier, 1994). Another more recent study evaluated commute stress and found those in vanpools reported less commute stress and especially for the commute from work (Ditmore & Deming, 2018). This could be because travel time can be used to maintain social relationships (Jain & Lyons, 2008). In addition, for those who have children in the car with them, they might see the trip as utilitarian. Based on Novaco and Collier's (1994) findings we assumed that having someone else in the automobile would predict commute enjoyment.

Unpredictability has been found to be a significant component of commuting stress among automobile drivers (Evans et al., 1987; Gottholmseder et al., 2009; Kluger, 1998; Sposato et al., 2012). Evans et al. (2002) found that train commuters who felt their commutes were unpredictable experienced higher stress as measured by higher levels of salivary cortisol. Evans et al. note that being able to predict one's commute can be a form of cognitive control that gives commuters ways to deal with stress and cope with it. In addition, Novaco et al. (1990) found that automobile commuters who have a variety of commuting options, which included different driving routes, helped decrease stress. Based on this research, we assumed that having predictable commutes to and from work would predict greater commute enjoyment.

Time pressures and feelings of time urgency have been shown to increase stress, aggression, frustration, and irritability for automobile commuters (Hennessy et

al, 2000; Koslowsky, 1997; Lucas & Heady, 2002). Hilbrecht et al. (2014) found that it was not just the quantity of time devoted to commuting that impacted automobile commuters' wellbeing, but that time pressures and congestion influenced it as well. Lucas and Heady (2002) found that automobile commuters with greater flextime (i.e., flexible work schedules) showed less perceived time urgency and driver stress. Based on this research, we assumed that having less time pressures will predict a more enjoyable commute.

Congestion is related to predictability in that it negatively impacts predictability and can increase delays for automobile commuters (Higgins et al., 2018). Hennessy (2011) defined congestion as when drivers perceive that there are too many vehicles or too little space in the location they are commuting in. Much of the research literature on congestion has found that it negatively affects automobile commuters in terms of their stress and wellbeing (Higgins et al., 2018). For example, congestion has been found to impact commuter stress and aggression (Hennessy & Wiesenthal, 1999). In addition, Gulian et al. (1989) found that traffic congestion took a physical toll on automobile commuters over time. Finally, Wener and Evans (2011) found for automobile commuters that congestion made them feel like their commute was less predictable and produced feelings of lack of control. Based on this research we assumed that having an uncongested commute would predict commute enjoyment.

Researchers recently have become interested in knowing not just the activities people do while commuting but also the usefulness of the commute, which often involves an assessment of multitasking (Singleton, 2018). Mokhtarian and Salomon (2001) found that half of their sample of varying types of commuters (i.e., automobile, public transport, waking, and biking) thought their commute was not wasted time and a third thought the commute was a useful transition. Commutes can give people time alone (Handy & Thigpen, 2019), they can serve as a time buffer between work and home (Jain & Lyons, 2008), and they can allow people to do something besides driving such as listening to music (Ettema & Verschuren, 2007). Based on this research we assumed that seeing one's commute to and from work as useful would predict commute enjoyment.

In summary, the following possible predictors of commute enjoyment were evaluated. Those included gender identity, and trip attributes (i.e., commute time, having someone else in the automobile, predictable commutes, lack of time pressures, and uncongested commutes), and drivers' perceptions of the commute (i.e., usefulness of the commute).

Method

Participants

We used the example demographic questions written by Hughes et al. (2022) in our survey. Those questions helped us to describe our sample.

Of the 490 participants who completed the survey, 220 identified as men, 251 identified as women, 10 identified as non-binary, and 2 identified as agender. Seven participants preferred not to answer the question. The average age of the participants was 36.92 (*SD* = 11.60, Range 19–71). Just over half of the participants identified as White or European American (58.6%) and the remainder identified as Asian or Asian American (7.3%), Black or African American (15.5%), Hispanic or Latino (8.4%), Arab, Middle Eastern, or North African (.4%), Native American or Alaska Native (1.2%), or multiracial (6.7%). Another 1.9% reported that they preferred not to answer. Many of the participants reported residing in the Southern part of the United States (62.8%) and drove an average of 22.84 (*SD* = 22.13) miles roundtrip to and from work. The commute to work took an average of 25.83 (*SD* = 17.26) minutes and the commute from work took an average of 29.70 (*SD* = 22.21) minutes. Of the participants, 63.7% drove alone in their automobile, 26.5% reported driving with family members or carpoolers most of the time, and 9.8% said that they drove some of the time with family members or carpoolers.

Measures

Commute Time

We asked commuters the number of minutes it took them on average to commute to work and the number of minutes it took them on average to commute from work.

Enjoyment of the Commute

Researchers have evaluated enjoyment of the commute in past studies by using a question such as "I enjoy my commute" (Abou-Zeid, 2009; Turcotte, 2006). For this study we used "Please rate how you feel about your typical commute" and participants evaluated this to work and from work. A 7-point scale was used ranging from 1 (*it is not enjoyable*) to 7 (*it is enjoyable*).

Lack of Time Pressures During Commute

Hennessy and Wiesenthal (1999) and Lucas and Heady (2002) used questions like "I am in a hurry" to assess time urgency. We used one broader question that asked about time pressures in general: "Please rate your typical commute and the time pressure you feel:" and participants evaluated this to and from work. A 5-point

scale was used ranging from 1 (*significant time pressure*) to 5 (*no time pressure*).

Predictable Commute

Koslowsky (1998) suggested that a single item could be used to assess predictability by asking if the commute takes the same amount of time each day and therefore is predictable. In addition, Denstadli et al. (2017) used one item to assess predictability by asking if the commute was predictable. For this study we also used one general question: "Please rate your typical commute time as far as predictability (i.e., being able to consistently predict how long your commute will take):" and participants evaluated this for to and from work. A 5-point scale was used ranging from 1 (*very unpredictable*) to 5 (*very predictable*).

Someone Else in the Automobile During the Commute

This was assessed using the question: "Do you drive with others (e.g., kids, partners, carpoolers, etc.) in your vehicle during your commutes?" and participants evaluated this for to and from work. A 5-point scale was used, ranging from 1 (*almost never or never*) to 5 (*almost all of the time or all of the time*).

Uncongested Commute

Researchers have often assessed congestion by asking if commuters are bothered by it. For example, Novaco and Collier (1994) used the following item to assess commuters' reactions to congestion: "How often do you feel bothered by traffic congestion in commuting to or from work?" Hilbrecht et al. (2014) assessed traffic congestion by asking participants, "Overall, how serious a problem is traffic congestion for you?" We wanted to know the commuters' perception of congestion in general and used the question: "Congestion is defined as traffic jams, start-stop conditions, or moving at less than 20 miles per hour. Please rate your typical commute as far as congestion:" and participants evaluated this for to and from work. A 5-point scale was used, ranging from 1 (*very congested*) to 5 (*uncongested*).

Usefulness of the Commute

Cao and Mokhtariah (2005) and Handy and Thigpen (2019) used a question about travel time being seen as wasted time. We used this as one anchor while the other anchor stated that "it is useful." We used the following question: "Please rate how you feel about your typical commute" and participants evaluated this to and from work. A 7-point scale was used ranging from 1 (*it is wasted time*) to 7 (*it is useful*).

Procedure

After obtaining IRB approval, 10 research lab members recruited 316 participants by seeking faculty and staff at our college, friends, and family to take the survey. The participants had to be 18 years or older, employed, and commute to and from work using an automobile. The survey was made accessible to all participants via a Qualtrics link, which allowed them to review and complete the survey at their convenience from any location with internet access. This method ensured that the survey was easily accessible and could be completed in a timely manner. Because the sample did not have enough male participants to analyze gender identity, the lab members recruited another 174 participants who identified as men using MTurk. All the participants were put into a drawing for one of four $50 Amazon gift cards and each participant from MTurk was also paid $1.00 for completing the survey.

We compared the two samples using independent *t* tests and they did not differ on the amount

Table 1
Correlations for the Commute Variables and Commute Enjoyment to Work

Variable	*M*	*SD*	1	2	3	4	5	6	7
1. Commute enjoyment to work	4.54	1.64	—						
2. Gender identity	.61	.64	-.10*	—					
3. Commute time	25.83	17.26	-.29***	-.05	—				
4. Someone else in the automobile	2.20	1.49	.27***	-.33***	-.01	—			
5. Commute predictability	3.97	.83	.33***	-.04	-.34***	.10*	—		
6. Lack of time pressures	3.31	1.23	.24***	.09*	-.25***	-.31***	.24***	—	
7. Uncongested commute	3.40	1.29	.13**	.22***	-.27***	-.39***	.28***	.65***	—
8. Usefulness of commute	4.45	1.82	.62***	-.20***	-.22***	.26***	.25***	.16**	.03

Note. Higher score indicates greater magnitude. All analyses were two-tailed. *$p < .05$, **$p < .01$, ***$p < .001$.

Table 2
Correlations for the Commute Variables and Commute Enjoyment from Work

Variable	*M*	*SD*	1	2	3	4	5	6	7
1. Commute enjoyment to work	4.37	1.74	—						
2. Gender identity	.61	.64	-.14***	—					
3. Commute time	29.70	22.21	-.37***	.01	—				
4. Someone else in the automobile	2.19	1.49	.27***	-.33***	-.06	—			
5. Commute predictability	3.86	.89	.40***	-.08*	-.38***	.13**	—		
6. Lack of time pressures	3.80	1.29	.03***	.16***	-.21***	-.46***	.12**	—	
7. Uncongested commute	3.17	1.35	.26	.13**	-.37***	-.31***	.27***	.63***	—
8. Usefulness of commute	4.34	1.82	.72***	-.17***	-.30***	.31***	.32***	-.02	.14***

Note. Higher score indicates greater magnitude. All analyses were two-tailed. *$p < .05$, **$p < .01$, ***$p < .001$.

of miles commuted, $t(478) = -.10$, $p = .92$, minutes commuted to work, $t(481) = -1.18$, $p = .24$, or minutes commuted from work, $t(482) = -.12$, $p = .90$. However, they did differ on age with the MTurk sample being younger ($M = 33.40$, $SD = 7.46$) than the first sample collected ($M = 38.91$, $SD = 12.98$), $t(478) = 5.13$, $p = .001$.

Results

Prior to conducting our multiple regressions, we tested the relevant assumptions as put forth by Tabachnick and Fidell (2012). First, the assumption of singularity was met. An examination of correlations (see Tables 1 and 2) revealed that none of our independent variables were too highly correlated. We used the cutoff of .80 that was proposed by Shrestha (2020). Our collinearity statistics, including Tolerance (using cutoffs of above .25) and VIF (using cutoffs below 4), were within acceptable limits. Next, our residual and scatterplots indicated the assumptions of normality, linearity, and homoscedasticity were met.

Using regression analyses for the commute to and from work, we found the following results. Commute time, having someone else in the automobile, predictability of the commute, lack of time pressures, and seeing one's commute as useful predicted enjoyment with the commute to work (the model accounted for 46% of the variance, $F(7, 463) = 58.961$, $p < .001$). The strongest predictor was seeing one's commute as useful. Gender identity and congestion were not predictors of commute enjoyment to work. See Table 3.

Commute time, having someone else in the automobile, predictability of the commute, lack of congestion, and seeing one's commute as useful predicted enjoyment with the commute from work (the model accounted for 57% of the variance, $F(7, 464) = 89.12$, $p < .001$). Again, the strongest predictor was seeing one's commute as useful. We did not find gender identity or time pressures to predict commute enjoyment to or from work. See Table 4.

Discussion

This study aimed to identify predictors of an enjoyable commute to and from work using gender identity, trip attributes (i.e., commute time, having someone else in the automobile, predictable commutes, lack of time pressures, and uncongested commutes), and drivers' perceptions of the commute (i.e., usefulness of the commute). All our variables, except for gender identity, accurately predicted commute enjoyment during the journey to and from work. We found commute time, having someone else in the automobile, predictability of the commute, lack of time pressures, and seeing one's commute as useful predicted enjoyment with the commute to work. Those same variables predicted enjoyment with the commute from work, except for lack of time pressures. An uncongested commute was found to be an additional predictor from work.

The finding that gender identity did not predict commute enjoyment to or from work is inconsistent with some previous research that has found that men enjoyed their commutes more than women (e.g., Handy & Thigpen, 2019). However, it should be noted that gender has not been a consistent predictor in the research literature. For example, Lucas and Heady (2002) and Wickens et al. (2015) evaluated gender when examining driver stress and did not find significant gender differences.

Table 3
Summary of Regression Analysis for Commute Variables Predicting Commute Enjoyment to Work

		Model	
Variable	*B*	*SE B*	*β*
Gender identity	.12	.09	.04
Commute time	-.01	.01	-.09*
Someone else in the automobile	.23	.05	.21***
Commute predictability	.22	.08	.11**
Lack of time pressures	.20	.06	.15***
Uncongested commute	.05	.06	.04
Usefulness of commute	.46	.03	.51***
Adjusted R^2		.46	
F for change in R^2		58.96***	

Note. $N = 470$, *$p < .05$, **$p < .01$, ***$p < .001$.

Table 4
Summary of Regression Analysis for Commute Variables Predicting Commute Enjoyment from Work

		Model 1	
Variable	*B*	*SE B*	*β*
Gender identity	-.03	.09	-.01
Commute time	-.01	.01	-.09*
Someone else in the automobile	.10	.04	.09*
Commute predictability	.23	.07	.12***
Lack of time pressures	-.08	.06	-.06
Uncongested commute	.23	.06	.18***
Usefulness of commute	.57	.03	.60***
Adjusted R^2		.57	
F for change in R^2		89.12***	

Note. $N = 471$, *$p < .05$, **$p < .01$, ***$p < .001$.

Commute time was a predictor for commute enjoyment for both the commute to work and from work. This supports prior research by Wachs and Taylor (1993) who found that travel satisfaction decreased with longer commutes. Han et al. (2023) also found longer commute times to increase stress and decrease overall well-being.

The finding that having someone else in the automobile is a predictor of commute enjoyment for both the commute to and from work supports prior research using carpoolers and vanpoolers. That research found those commuters to have greater satisfaction with their commute (Ditmore & Deming, 2018; Novaco & Collier, 1994). The findings from this study support adding enjoyment as a possible outcome as well.

Having a predictable commute was found to be a predictor of enjoyment for both the commute to and from work. This supports prior research that has found that unpredictability was a significant component of commuting stress among automobile drivers (Evans et al., 1987; Kluger, 1998). This stress might decrease their commute enjoyment.

In addition, our findings support Ettema et al.'s (2016) research that found that time pressures were related to commuter dissatisfaction. When we evaluated the commutes to and from work, we found lack of time pressures to only be a predictor for the commute to work. This makes sense in that there can be consequences for being late to work, which could make those who do not have time pressures enjoy their commute more. Employers might want to consider flextime if the jobs permit for its use (Lucas & Heady, 2002; Xiao et al., 2014).

Previous research has found that automobile commuters' satisfaction and enjoyment decline as congestion increase (Higgins et al., 2018). This was found to be a predictor for the commute from work. Those who reported less congested commutes reported greater commute enjoyment. This could be because many people's commutes from work happen in the late afternoon or evening when congestion is greater because of not only workers going home but also children going home from schools and people going to afterwork activities.

Finally, this research supports seeing one's commute to and from work as useful and contributing to enjoyment of the commute. Commutes can give people time alone or serve as a buffer between work and home (Handy & Thigpen, 2019; Higgins et al., 2018; Jain & Lyons, 2008). In addition, commuters can multitask while they commute, which could create commute enjoyment (Ettema & Verschuren, 2007).

This research highlights the importance of considering not only the objective aspects of the commute, such as travel time and congestion, but also subjective factors like usefulness. The individual's perception of their commute, such as its usefulness, is a strong predictor of commute enjoyment both to and from work. The daily commute can significantly impact an individual's well-being, and we found several factors can influence this impact. By understanding these predictors, commuters can take steps to create a more enjoyable commute experience.

One of the key takeaways from this study is the importance of perceived usefulness of the commute. When individuals see their commute as useful, they are more likely to enjoy it. Commuters can reevaluate the purpose of their commute to increase the perceived usefulness of their commute, which could influence their enjoyment of the commute. Furthermore, they can use their commute time productively by listening to music or podcasts, talking with friends or relatives, or catching up on the daily news, which could make them enjoy the commute more.

In addition, commuters might want to evaluate the number of minutes they are spending commuting to see if it is optimal for them. They also could assess how predictable their commute is and if it is not predictable, they could work to make it more predictable by changing their routes or times they commute. Finally, commuters could work to lessen time pressures for their commute to work and avoid congestion on their commute from work to make their commutes more enjoyable.

Additionally, this study provides valuable insight for organizations and urban planners. The findings of the study can be utilized by urban planners to devise pathways that reduce the likelihood of the occurrence of external events that are unpredictable. Companies can encourage their workers to make their commutes more predictable by offering flexible work hours (Lucas & Heady, 2002) or resources for different modes of transportation.

Overall, this study provides valuable insights into predictors of enjoyable commutes to and from work. A significant strength of our research was the ability to recruit many participants using an online survey. As a result, we had a large and diverse sample size of 490 commuters from different genders, ages, and ethnic backgrounds. Another strength is that the commute to work and the commute from work were both assessed. Much of the prior research has not distinguished between the two. In addition, the wording of "to work" and "from work" was used instead of "morning commute" and "evening commute" to be inclusive of those who do not

work standard hours and commute to work in the afternoon or evening.

The present study contributes valuable insights into the knowledge of commuting. However, like any research, future studies need to consider some limitations. First, the study relied on a questionnaire, which used closed-formatted questions and may not have captured the complexity of participants' thoughts about commuting. One way to address this limitation in the future would be to use an alternative methodology, such as interviews where commuters could elaborate in their answers. Second, the questionnaire used one question to assess each of the predictors for commutes to work and one question to assess each of the predictors for commutes from work. This was done to intentionally keep the questionnaire short. These questions were based on questions that other commute researchers had used and this has been common practice for commute researchers in that they often use single questions to assess commute factors (Singleton & Clifton, 2021). It should be noted that there are some established scales about commuting factors, but their questions often are not specific to the commute and instead evaluate driving behaviors (e.g., Lajunen et al., 2004), driving ability (e.g., Tronsmoen, 2008), driver styles (Taubman-Ben-Ari et al., 2004), or driver dispositions (e.g., Beck et al., 2013). One area of growth for commuting research would be to develop new multi-item scales that assess a broader range of commute factors. Third, the study was conducted within the United States, which could limit the generalizability of the findings. Future research should include a more diverse and representative sample of participants in other countries and other regions of the United States. Fourth, one of the possible predictors for our study was gender identity, but we were unable to recruit enough men to statistically analyze gender identity. This happened because our participants were recruited from a historically women's college where most of the students, faculty, and staff identify as women. We decided to collect additional participants who identified as men using MTurk. We compared the two samples, and they did not statistically differ on commute characteristics (i.e., miles or minutes commuted to and from work). However, the MTurk sample was younger, and this is a limitation of this research. Finally, the study only considered a limited set of predictors that could influence commute enjoyment. To broaden the scope of the research, future studies could investigate other factors such as social support, commute mode, and job satisfaction. These additional variables could provide a more comprehensive understanding of commute enjoyment and contribute to developing more effective recommendations.

Additional considerations include conducting future research over an extended period to determine if other factors, such as season, influence commuters' perceptions of commute enjoyment. For example, some commuters might especially enjoy commuting when it is football or basketball season, and they can listen to analyses of the games. In addition, we would like to determine if the type of person the commuter is commuting with (i.e., a coworker, family member, or friend) influences the automobile commuter's enjoyment in different ways. For example, would someone prefer to commute with a friend as compared to a coworker and would one cause more stress or enjoyment than the other? Another topic of interest is whether participants have additional stops to make, such as running errands or picking up food, and how that may affect commute enjoyment as well as the commute's perceived usefulness (Bhat, 1999; Christian, 2012). Finally, it would be interesting to evaluate commuters who commute in more urban areas as compared to more rural areas. Although Ettema et al. (2012) did not find significant differences in commute satisfaction for commuters from different sizes of Swedish cities, it would be interesting to compare the enjoyment of these different types of commutes.

In conclusion, this study provides important insights into the predictors of enjoyable commutes to and from work. By understanding these predictors, commuters can take steps to create a more enjoyable commute experience, which could significantly impact the well-being of commuters.

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